1. RFID Household Food-Waste Charging Study (Mapo District, Seoul)

Verified. The study is Sabinne Lee and Kwangho Jung, "Exploring Effective Incentive Design to Reduce Food Waste: A Natural Experiment of Policy Change from Community Based Charge to RFID Based Weight Charge," *Sustainability*, 2017, Vol. 9, No. 11, article 2046. It can be accessed at https://www.mdpi.com/2071-1050/9/11/2046.[1][2]

Key details confirmed:

- **Sample:** The comparison of "unit-based" (household-level RFID) versus "complex-based" charging drew on 12 treated apartment complexes in Mapo-gu that adopted the RFID individual-metering system, matched via propensity-score matching against 12 control complexes using nearest-neighbor 1:1 matching; a broader secondary control set of 61–63 complexes using RFID vehicle/complex-level weighing was also used for robustness.[^3]
- **Methodology:** Propensity Score Matching (PSM) was used to select comparable control complexes based on covariates (e.g., apartment price, heating type, complex size), followed by a Difference-in-Differences (DID) regression using panel data spanning roughly June 2013–July 2016 (38 months).[4][3]
- **Main finding:** Household-level attribution (individual/RFID-based unit pricing) reduced food waste significantly more effectively than complex-level (shared) fee schemes — supporting the idea that individual incentives outperform group incentives due to reduced free-riding and social loafing. By contrast, simply **raising the fee size** (from a separate time-series analysis of a 13-complex sample in Seongbuk-gu, where the fee rose from KRW 75/kg to KRW 100/kg in July 2015) had **little to no measurable effect** on food waste reduction.[4][3]

This confirms the query's description: individual/household attribution matters far more than the magnitude of the fee itself.

2. Convery, McDonnell & Ferreira — "The Most Popular Tax in Europe?" (Ireland Plastic Bag Levy)

Mostly verified, with one clarification and one unverifiable detail.

- **Citation:** Frank Convery, Simon McDonnell, and Susana Ferreira, "The Most Popular Tax in Europe? Lessons from the Irish Plastic Bags Levy," *Environmental and Resource Economics*, 2007, Vol. 38, pp. 1–11, DOI: 10.1007/s10640-006-9059-2.[5][6]
- **Levy amount at introduction:** Confirmed — €0.15 per plastic bag, introduced March 2002.[6][7]
- **Percentage reduction in bag use:** The paper itself states usage fell by **approximately 94%** according to unpublished thesis data cited within the paper (McDonnell), with a broader "more than 90%" figure used in the conclusions section; secondary/government sources commonly cite ~90%.[8][7]

- **2007 increase to €0.22:** This detail is **not found within the Convery et al. (2007) paper itself** — the paper was published in January 2007 and covers only the pre-2007 period. The €0.22 increase (implemented mid-2007, after usage had crept back up to 31–33 bags per capita) is well documented in later secondary sources (Irish government and press reports), not in this specific academic paper.[9][10]
- **Kitchen bin-liner substitution effect:** The Convery et al. paper does **directly acknowledge increased bin-liner purchases** as an offsetting factor, but treats it as a retailer cost-saving benefit rather than quantifying it as a formal empirical result. It states that retailers' net costs were "more than counterbalanced by cost savings ... and additional sales of bin liners," and a retailer survey table in the paper (Table 2) reports a **75% increase in demand for permanent/reusable bags** at one large retailer and a **400% increase** at a department/clothing retailer — but these figures refer to reusable "bags for life," not specifically kitchen bin liners. The frequently cited figure of a **77% increase in bin-liner sales** (reported by Tesco Ireland) and a broader estimated **300–400% increase in demand** for bin-liner products comes from contemporaneous Irish press reporting (Irish Examiner, January 2003) and government correspondence, **not from the Convery et al. academic paper itself.**[11][7][^9]

Flagged discrepancy: The user's query assumes the paper documents the €0.22 (2007) increase and a specific bin-liner substitution magnitude. Neither is directly present in the 2007 academic paper as published — both are documented in secondary sources (government reports, press) that are frequently cited alongside or in commentary about the paper.

3. Chetty, Looney & Kroft — "Salience and Taxation" (AER 2009)

Fully verified. Raj Chetty, Adam Looney, and Kory Kroft, "Salience and Taxation: Theory and Evidence," *American Economic Review*, September 2009, Vol. 99, No. 4, pp. 1145–1177, DOI: 10.1257/aer.99.4.1145.[12][13]

The grocery-store field experiment (conducted at a Northern California supermarket over three weeks in early 2006, covering ~750 products in cosmetics, hair-care accessories, and deodorants) found that posting tax-inclusive price tags reduced demand by **approximately 8 percent**, using a difference-in-differences design comparing treated products to two control groups (untreated products in the same store and matched products in nearby stores). The precise DDD (triple-difference) estimate translates to about a 7.6% reduction relative to baseline sales, consistent with the commonly cited "~8%" figure.[13][12]

4. The British Brick Tax

Verified, with details cross-checked against Wikipedia's sourced summary and specialist brick-history sites.

- **Start year:** 1784, introduced under King George III via the Duties on Bricks and Tiles Act 1784, to help fund the American War of Independence.[14][15]
- **Rate changes:** Bricks were initially taxed at 2 shillings 6 pence (2s 6d) per thousand. The rate rose to 4 shillings per thousand in 1794, to 5 shillings in 1797, and to a final rate of 5 shillings 10 pence per thousand in 1805.[^15]

- **Manufacturer response (enlarged bricks):** Confirmed — manufacturers, notably Joseph Wilkes at Measham, Leicestershire, began producing oversized bricks (known as "Wilkes' gobs," approximately 9.25 x 4.25 x 4.25 inches) to reduce the effective tax per unit volume of brick used.[^15]
- **Government response constraining dimensions:** In **1801**, the government responded by capping brick mold dimensions at 10 x 5 x 3 inches and doubling the tax rate on any bricks exceeding that size.[^15]
- **Repeal year:** 1850, via the Brick Duties Repeal Act 1850, by which point the tax was considered a detriment to industrial development.[^15]

All details align closely with the query's assumptions, confirming 1784 as the start year and 1850 as the repeal year.

5. The English Window Tax

Verified. The window tax was introduced in England in 1696 under King William III (originally to offset revenue lost from coin-clipping) and was repealed on 24 July 1851. This matches the 1696–1851 date range in the query.[16][17][^18]

Documented health and light consequences include:

- Landlords and homeowners bricked up or boarded windows, and new buildings were constructed with fewer windows to avoid the tax — visible today as "blind" or "blocked" windows on historic buildings, sometimes called "Pitt's Pictures".[19][16]
- When the taxable threshold dropped from ten to seven windows in 1766, the number of houses in England and Wales with exactly seven windows fell by nearly two-thirds, showing direct behavioral distortion.[16][19]
- Public health officials linked the resulting lack of ventilation and light to outbreaks of typhus, smallpox, cholera, and dysentery, particularly among poorer tenement residents.[20][19][^16]
- An 1845 sanitary report on Sunderland by Dr. D.B. Reid explicitly stated the local Health Committee's view that window-blocking caused by the tax had "greatly aggravated, and has even ... in some cases been the primary cause of much sickness and mortality".[^16]
- The tax became popularly known as a "tax on light and air," a framing used by campaigners (including Charles Dickens) in the successful repeal campaign of 1850–1851.[18][21]

These findings are corroborated by multiple independent sources, including UK Parliament educational materials, the National Archives, and peer-reviewed economic history (Oates and Schwab, "The Window Tax: A Case Study in Excess Burden").[22][23]

Summary of Flags

The only substantive item that could not be fully verified as stated is item (2): the Convery, McDonnell & Ferreira (2007) paper does not itself report the 2007 levy increase to €0.22 or a specific quantified bin-liner substitution percentage — those come from Irish government/press sources published after the paper. All other claims across the five sources are fully verified against primary or highly authoritative secondary sources.

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